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Nagapattinam to Suvarnadwipa

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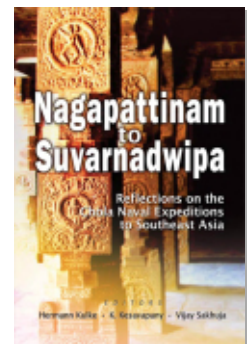
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1

THE NAVAL EXPEDITIONS OF THE CHOLAS IN THE CONTEXT OF ASIAN HISTORY¹

Hermann Kulke

In one of his inscriptions at the monumental temple at Tanjavur, King Rajendra Chola is praised for having dispatched in 1025 “many ships in the midst of the rolling sea and having caught Sangrama-vijayottunga-varman, the king of Kadaram, together with the elephants in his glorious army, (took) the large heap of treasures, which (that king) had rightfully accumulated; (captured) with noise the (arch called) Vidhyadhara-torana at the ‘war gate’ of his extensive city, Srivijaya with the ‘jeweled wicket-gate’ adorned with great splendour and the ‘gate of large jewels’”.² The inscription enumerates likewise twelve other port cities on the Malay Peninsula, Sumatra, and the Nicobar Islands, which had been raided by the South Indian navy.

Rajendra’s mighty overseas expedition against Srivijaya was a unique event in India’s history and its otherwise peaceful relations with the states of Southeast Asia which had come under India’s strong cultural influence for about a millennium. The reasons of this naval expedition are still a moot point as the sources are silent about its exact causes. Nilakanta Sastri concluded in his monumental work on the Cholas that “we have to assume either some attempt on the part of Srivijaya to throw obstacles in the way of the Cola trade with the East, or more probably, a simple desire on the part of Rajendra to extend his *digvijaya* to the countries across the sea so well known to his subjects at home, and thereby add luster to his crown”.³ The American

historian G.W. Spencer interprets the naval expedition of the Cholas as the culmination of their “politics of plunder” and expansionism which the Cholas had been employing for decades already in wars in South India and Sri Lanka.⁴ In 1995 Tansen Sen pointed out that “the possibility of a ‘trade war’ cannot be completely ruled out because the *Zhufan zhi* [Description of the Barbarous People by Chau Ju-kua, AD 1225] records of Srivijayans forcing foreign ships to stop at their sea ports, and if the ships failed to do so, then, they would be attacked by the powerful Srivijayan navy and destroyed. Therefore, the Cola raid on Srivijaya can be concluded as an ambitious maneuver with a pretext to remove hindrance from the trade route.”⁵ In his more recent monograph of the year 2003, Sen went even a step further and suggested that “the Srivijayan diplomatic and military attempts to block direct maritime links between Indian and the Song markets may have been both the principal factors for the Chola naval raids”.⁶ Recently K.V. Ramesh, too, emphasized the unhindered and unthreatened trade between South and Southeast Asia as the primary purpose of the naval expedition, but also, as its second, the booty, as claimed in Rajendra’s own inscription.⁷ Another possible factor, particularly emphasized by Meera Abraham in her monograph on South Indian merchant guilds, is a direct influence of the famous Manigramam and Ayyavole merchant guilds on the politics of the Cholas.⁸ All these explanations have their own truth value. But there are reasons to assume that Rajendra’s naval expeditions against Srivijaya also have to be seen in the much wider context of Asian history and the contemporary political and economic developments in the Indian Ocean.

The late tenth century witnessed the synchronous rise of three new and powerful dynasties, the Fatimids in Egypt (AD 969), the Song in China (AD 960) and the Cholas (AD 985), which soon began to interfere in the Indian Ocean trade system. The decline of the Abbasids of Baghdad and the rise of the Fatimids in Egypt were major events in the Muslim world. Already in 985/86 al-Maqqisi wrote “Baghdad was once a magnificent city, but is now fast falling to ruin and decay, and has lost all its splendor... Al-Fustat of Misr (Cairo) in the present day is like Baghdad of old; I know no city in Islam superior to it.”⁹ The rise of the Fatimids as the dominating power of the Muslim World not only caused the shift of Muslim trading activities from the Persian Gulf to the Red Sea,¹⁰ but also increased considerably the importance of the Malabar coast in the hinterland of the emerging Chola power. Whereas the Persian Gulf trade with India followed mainly the coastal line to the great harbours of Gujarat, ships from the Red Sea and Aden, particularly during the summer monsoon, easily crossed the Arabian Sea directly to the Malabar coast of South India. This development is well documented by the famous

Geniza documents of Jewish traders of Cairo/Al-Fustat and Aden with the Malabar coast.¹¹ In the Far East the Song dynasty from the outset began to promote and control maritime trade more successfully than any other Chinese dynasty.¹² But India and Southeast Asia, too, emerged during these decades as active participants in the international power struggle and maritime trade between the Near East and China, the terminals of the Indian Ocean trade. The spectacular attack of the Cholas on Srivijaya has to be seen in this broader context of the rise of new powers, the shift of trade routes, and, as a consequence of these processes, a struggle for market share.

The rise of the Cholas from 985 to 1025 took place with breathtaking swiftness. From their dynastic core region in the Kaveri delta, King Rajaraja subdued all kingdoms of South India with their coastal regions, penetrated into central India, and conquered the offshore islands of Sri Lanka and the Maldives. In the twenties of the eleventh century, his son Rajendra undertook, as a culmination of this Chola expansionism, his two unique expeditions to Bengal and Southeast Asia. The Cholas appear to have followed a systematic plan, even though it might have evolved only stepwise. After the conquest of the whole of South India and its flourishing ports on the Coromandel and Malabar coasts, they occupied Sri Lanka and the Maldives as important maritime trading centres in the Indian Ocean, and then subdued all possible Indian opponents on the eastern coast up to Bengal (for example, the Somavamsa of Orissa) and finally attacked Srivijaya, which dominated Southeast Asia's trade routes through the Straits of Malacca and the Sunda Straits.

During the last centuries of the first millennium AD, India and Southeast Asia went through similar processes of state formation, which elsewhere have been subsumed under the term "from early to imperial kingdom".¹³ The result of this development was an increased capacity of the state to extract socially produced surplus, and to mobilize men and means. Suffice it to mention here the rise of the Rashtrakutas in Central India in 752 and the state of Angkor in AD 802. More or less simultaneously with the expansionism of the Cholas under Rajaraja and Rajendra, the kingdom of Angkor for the first time extended its frontiers far beyond its dynastic homelands, and subjugated parts of Laos, central Thailand, and the northern part of the Malay Peninsula. It soon became the dominating power in the Gulf of Siam and Mainland Southeast Asia and was, therefore, bound to get into conflict with Dai-Viet and Champa who were competing for the control of the important maritime trade routes on the eastern coast of Mainland Southeast Asia.¹⁴ And, most important in our context, Angkor penetrated very directly into the sphere of interest of Srivijaya on the

northern Malay Peninsula.¹⁵ For centuries, Srivijaya had controlled the southern part of the Malay Peninsula up to Ligor and Chaiya and temporarily even the Isthmus of Kra. In this northern outpost of Srivijaya's influence on the Malay Peninsula, one of its most important inscriptions records the construction of a sanctuary in Ligor, dedicated to Buddha, Padmapani, and Vajrapani by a king of Srivijaya in the year 775.¹⁶

From the middle of the eleventh century, another "imperial kingdom" and important competitor arose in the northeastern Bay of Bengal. The kingdom of Pagan united central and coastal Burma with parts of the northwestern coast of the Malay Peninsula. Pagan was thus, perhaps for the first time in the history of Southeast Asia, able to link maritime trade in the northern Bay of Bengal directly with China, through its access to the land route to Yunnan. During this period Burma's relations with countries on the opposite side of the Bay of Bengal and with Sri Lanka appear to have been very strong as can be seen, for example, from the influence of Orissan architecture in early Pagan.

The Malay world of present Malaysia and Indonesia was divided between Srivijaya in the west and the kingdom of Mataram in Java. In the early tenth century Mataram had shifted its capital from near Yogyakarta in southern central Java to northeastern Java near Surabaya. The causes of the abandonment of one of Asia's most impressive sacred spaces around the Borobudur and Prambanan are still unknown.¹⁷ But there are good reasons to assume that this shift aimed at the control of the fertile rice-growing plains southwest of Surabaya, and at a more direct access to, and perhaps even control over, the spice trade route from the Moluccas which passed along the northern coast of Java. The west of the archipelago and its important trade routes were, since the late seventh century, under the control of Srivijaya. Sometimes termed as a thalassocracy or "Ocean State", Srivijaya appears to have been a confederation of harbours and their respective hinterlands rather than a centrally administered agrarian state,¹⁸ but its richness was proverbial. In the year 956, on the eve of the above mentioned rise of the new great powers of the Indian Ocean, the Arab geographer Ma'sudi reported that even the fastest ship would not have been able to visit in two years all the islands of this kingdom whose Maharaja extracts more profit from his own country than any other rulers of the world.¹⁹ Srivijaya, however, was also known for its military strength and piracy-like activities. An early twelfth-century Chinese account reports "They [the Srivijayans] are skilled at fighting on land or water. When they are about to make war on another state they assemble and send forth such a force as the occasion demands. They appoint chiefs and leaders, and all provide their own

military equipment and the necessary provisions. In facing their enemy and braving death they have not their equal among other nations.... If a merchant ship passes by without entering [their harbour], their boats go forth to make a combined attack, and all are ready to die [in the attempt]. This is the reason why this country is a great shipping centre.”²⁰

The relations of the Southeast Asian states with their great neighbours, India and China, were intensive, but of very different natures. India was for Southeast Asian countries the holy land of Buddhism and Hinduism and certainly an important trading place. But politically and increasingly, economically too, China was the undisputed “Middle Kingdom”. All kingdoms of Southeast Asia and particularly those that were small and harassed by their neighbours sent tributary missions to the imperial court of China.²¹ For Southeast Asian historiography and, of course, for the historiography of the Indian Ocean trade system, it is of the greatest importance that Chinese officials reported meticulously about these missions, their gifts, requests, etc. China’s own interest in the “southern barbarians” of Kunlun, the countries of Southeast Asia, increased considerably under the Tang dynasty (618–907).²² Their rule coincided with the early heyday of transoceanic trade of Arab and Near Eastern merchants in China.²³

The reunification of China under the Song dynasty and the rise of the Fatimids and the Cholas in the second half of the tenth century initiated a new era in the maritime history of Asia. Shortly after his accession to the throne, the first Song emperor issued orders for the regulation of maritime trade and revenues. About two decades later, a “Bureau of Licensed Trade” was established for buying up foreign goods which were then sold as a state monopoly. In 987 the Chinese government gave an instruction which appears to have been one of the major causes of the struggles in the Bay of Bengal during the eleventh century. In this year, China dispatched four missions vested with imperial authority and gifts to foreign countries to induce “foreign traders of the South Sea and those who went to foreign lands beyond the sea” to come more frequently to the Chinese ports on the promise of special facilities and import licences.²⁴

Srivijaya was the first country to react to the Chinese offer and sent a tribute mission already the following year. But during its stay in China the mission was informed that its country had been attacked by the east Javanese kingdom of Mataram. During a stopover in Champa the mission received the news that Mataram was still continuing its war against Srivijaya. The mission, therefore, returned to China and Srivijaya was placed under imperial protection. But a Javanese embassy to China in 992 confirmed that the war was still going on.²⁵ The reasons for this conflict are unknown. But in this case too, we

may assume that it was caused by competition between these two states which were most directly involved in the spice trade with China.

We are informed that during these years of increasing tensions, a number of peculiar “rituo-political” donations of Southeast Asian rulers to China and India. The annals of the Song dynasty report that in 1003 the king of Srivijaya “sent two envoys to bring tribute. They told that in their country a Buddhist temple had been erected in order to pray for the long life of the emperor and that they wanted a name and bells for it by which the emperor would show that he appreciated their good intentions. An edict was issued by which the temple got the name of *Ch’eng-t’ien-wan-shou* (‘ten thousand years of receiving [blessings] from heaven [that is, China]’) and bells were cast to be given to them.”²⁶ The next year Srivijaya again sent envoys to China who were followed up by four embassies until 1018. Obviously Srivijaya was most eager to win China’s favour.

In exactly the period when Srivijaya’s king had a temple constructed for the welfare of the Chinese emperor, Srivijaya also entered into the same type of diplomatic relations with the Chola state in South India. The famous larger Leiden grant of the year 1005 records the Chola king Rajaraja donating the revenue of a village for the maintenance of the Buddhist shrine Cudamani Vihara, which Sri Maravijayottungavarman, the Sailendra king of Srivijaya, had constructed in the name of his father at Nagapattinam, the major port of the Chola state.²⁷ The foundation stone of this shrine in the South Indian harbour might have already been laid about two years earlier in 1003, the year when the king of Srivijaya informed the Chinese emperor about the construction of a Buddhist shrine for his welfare. It is tempting to assume a direct connection between these two unusual and more or less synchronous deeds of Srivijaya’s king whose name is clearly mentioned both in Chinese and Indian sources. Srivijaya obviously tried to establish friendly relations with the two big powers of East and South Asia in order to maintain and strengthen its privileged position in the maritime trade in eastern Asia. Previously China might have been more important for Srivijaya than South India. But after their conquest of South India’s ports, the Maldives, and Sri Lanka, the Cholas controlled the central section of the Indian Ocean trade routes in a way very similar to how Srivijaya dominated its southeastern section. During this period of incipient trade rivalry in the Bay of Bengal, both states obviously still tried to maintain their friendly relations.²⁸ After his accession to the Chola throne in 1014, Rajendra continued this policy. In 1015 he confirmed his father’s donation to Srivijaya’s temple at Nagapattinam by a new inscription. That same year and in 1018, he received large gifts of “China gold” (*Cina-kanakam*) from Srivijaya for a Hindu temple and its Brahmins in the Chola harbour.²⁹

During these years, Angkor, Mainland Southeast Asia's major power, also entered into this kind of ritual diplomacy with the Cholas. Shortly after 1012 King Suryavarman I under whom, as already mentioned, Angkor became the dominating power in the Gulf of Siam, chose a very unusual gift for the Chola king. For the protection of his own royalty (*atma-laksmi*) he presented to Rajendra a war chariot with which he had defeated his own enemies.³⁰ In this case too, it is left to us to speculate on the reasons for the truly royal gift by the king of Angkor to his colleague on the Chola throne. It is likely that Angkor had entered troubled waters with its penetration into Srivijaya's sphere of influence on the Malay Peninsula. The Isthmus of Kra had always offered an alternative to the long and often dangerous maritime trade route to the Gulf of Siam through the Straits of Malacca, particularly for those merchants who wished to avoid the rather restrictive staple rights of Srivijaya about which we are informed by a Chinese account of the early twelfth century: "In recent years San-fo-ch'i [Srivijaya] has established monopoly in sandalwood. The ruler orders merchants to sell it to him. The market value of the product therefore increases several times. The subjects of that country do not dare to sell it privately. This is an effective way of governance. The country is exactly [at the center of] the southern sea. The Ta-shih [Arab] countries are far away to its west. Chinese going to Ta-shih reach San-fo-ch'i, repair their ships, and exchange goods. Merchants from distant places congregate there. This country is therefore considered to be the most prosperous one."³¹ It is quite possible that in the early eleventh century, Angkor tried to reactivate the land route at the Isthmus of Kra in order to divert the maritime trade between the Bay of Bengal and China directly through the Isthmus of Kra and the Gulf of Siam which now had come under its control.

Our sources are silent about a direct conflict between Srivijaya and Angkor in the eleventh century. But in the late eighth century, several inscriptions in Champa reported that people from Java and other islands, "men living on food more horrible than cadavers, frightful, came in ships" and desecrated temples and idols.³² In the mid-eleventh century, Sadasiva, Suryavarman's *purohita* (royal chaplain) and brother-in-law, claims in his famous Sdok Kak Thom inscription that his forefather Sivakaivalya had consecrated Angkor's "state cult", the Devaraja cult, in AD 802 in order "to prevent his land of Kambuja from ever being [again] dependent (*ayatta*) on Java".³³ This reference in an inscription of the year 1052 shows that in eleventh-century Angkor there still existed an awareness of a possible threat from Java, which in the eleventh-century context, certainly also referred to Srivijaya. It might have been this wish never to become "dependent on Java" again which induced the king of Angkor to present to the ruler of South India his own war chariot for the sake of his *atma-laksmi*. Obviously

the Cholas, too, meanwhile had become rivals of Srivijaya and thus potential allies of Angkor.³⁴

It is not surprising that in this period of hectic diplomatic activities of the various states of the Bay of Bengal, the Cholas sent their first embassy to the Chinese court. It had a stopover in Srivijaya for several months and reached China in 1015. As this happened only ten years before the swift attack of the Chola navy on the ports of Srivijaya, one may assume that the South Indian envoys had done excellent intelligence work in view of a possible future conflict with Srivijaya. As for the reception of the mission at the imperial court of China we have a detailed report in the Chinese encyclopedia *Wenxian tong kao* of the year 1319: "The kingdom [Chu-lien] which in antiquity never had communications with the Empire, sent ambassadors for the first time under the dynasty of the Song." In a letter handed over by the chief of the mission, Rajaraja, who meanwhile had passed away, informed the Emperor: "My age, the stretch of the seas which separate us, and the great difficulties on the route to traverse, do not permit me to go, in order to carry myself the tribute that I wish to offer you. ... [This will therefore be done by] my envoys, to the number of fifty-two, arriving at the foot of your throne. I have ordered them to offer you a robe and cap decorated with pearls, pearls of different sizes weighing about 21,000 liang, sixty pieces of ivory and sixty pounds of incense."³⁵ The mission to China was a great success. The large number of its members seems to have prompted the Chinese prefect of Guangzhou to request the Song court, as early as by the following year, to limit the members of embassies from these "Big Four", the Cholas, Arabs, Srivijaya, and Java, to not more than twenty people,³⁶ a plea which, however, went unheard. As emphasized by Tansen Sen,³⁷ throughout the eleventh and twelfth centuries it remained Srivijaya's major diplomatic aim to lower the Cholas in China's esteem.

As already mentioned, Rajendra Chola initially seems to have continued his father's policy of friendly relations with Srivijaya as he reconfirmed his father's grant to Srivijaya's Buddhist temple at Nagapattinam, and in turn received valuable presents from the king of Srivijaya. But there are reasons to assume that during these years the competition between the major powers of the Bay of Bengal and the Javanese Sea had increased considerably. In 1016 the east Javanese kingdom of Mataram was attacked and its capital ransacked by west Javanese troops with the obvious approval or even support of Srivijaya.³⁸ For more than a decade Mataram ceased to be Srivijaya's rival in the spice trade of the eastern islands. As if aware of its precarious position after having become the sole big power of maritime Southeast Asia, Srivijaya sent envoys regularly to China in 1016, 1017, and 1018.

The Cholas did not remain mere spectators of Srivijaya's rise to an unchallenged regional power with control over the vital maritime trade routes in Southeast Asia. They, too, started a new round of eliminating possible rivals in the offshore islands of South Asia. In 1017 the last remnants of the ancient kingdom of Sri Lanka were destroyed. Polonnaruwa, with its easy access to the eastern coast and its ports, became the new Chola capital of Sri Lanka. In the same year, a first small naval expedition of the Cholas might have reached Kadaram, Srivijaya's major outpost on the Malay Peninsula. In case it really occurred, Srivijaya's mission to the Cholas in 1018 might have been intended to calm down the Chola's increasing suspicion against Srivijaya's intentions.³⁹ In the same year Kerala with its important Malabar ports was finally subjugated, and the "many ancient islands", the Maldives, were again attacked. In 1020, only five years after their first embassy had reached China, the Cholas again sent envoys to the Imperial Court.⁴⁰ A few years later, in 1022/23 the Cholas accomplished their grand design by their victorious march through Kalinga up to the Ganges, eliminating all possible rivals on the eastern coast of the subcontinent and finally undertaking their great naval expedition against Srivijaya in 1025.

It appears as if the Cholas had initially been trying to copy the Srivijayan model, that is, to gain undisputed control over ports and the maritime routes which passed through their sphere of influence. The exact reasons for abandoning their quest for regional hegemony and extending their expansionism across the Bay of Bengal to Southeast Asia are still unknown. But apparently their competition with Srivijaya had reached a level where traditional means of settling conflicts were no longer valid. In the year 1023, the competition between the Cholas and Srivijaya might have even further increased when the Chinese Emperor urged Arab envoys to shift their trade from the Central Asian Silk Road to the Silk Road of the Sea.⁴¹ In this situation, the immensity of the stake in the maritime trade might have induced the famous South India merchant guilds of the Ayyavole and Manigramam to play a more active role in this maritime big power game.⁴² They might have tried to influence the Chola court in a way similar to how the (British) Rangoon Chamber of Commerce exerted pressure on the British Government on the eve of the annexation of Upper Burma in 1885. But, of course, this is mere conjecture as our sources are totally silent on this point.

The Chola raid of fourteen flourishing port cities on the Malay Peninsula and in Sumatra appears to have shocked the countries of Southeast Asia as none of them sent envoys to China for three years. In 1028 the Song Emperor, therefore, complained that "in recent years foreign shipping rarely came to Canton". He sent instructions to the fiscal superintendent of Canton

to invite the merchants to return to Canton.⁴³ Already a few weeks later, a mission from Srivijaya arrived and was treated with great honour. O.W. Wolters, therefore, rightly remarks that “Srivijaya was still in business”⁴⁴ and J. Wisseman Christie even came to the conclusion that “the effects of the Chola raids appear, for the most part, to have been minimal and transitory: Srivijaya sent a well-received mission to China in 1028”.⁴⁵ Although hampered by internal struggles between several port cities — most likely a result of the Chola raid — Srivijaya regained its dominant position in the western Malay world with its important Straits. It returned to its traditional means of diplomacy in order to improve its position at the Chinese court. In 1079 it donated the unbelievable amount of 600,000 gold pieces for the repair and maintenance of a Taoist shrine in Canton.⁴⁶ From a Chinese report of the twelfth century we know that Srivijaya had again become “the most important port-of-call on the sea-routes of the foreigners, from the country of Java (She-p’o) on the east and from the countries of the Arabs (T’a-shi) and Quilon (Ku-lin) in the west; they all pass through it on their way to China”.⁴⁷

After their naval expedition the Cholas seem to have confined themselves to only one other mission to China in the year 1033. Obviously they were reluctant to convert their military success into more permanent political dominion, by, for instance, the establishment of a fortified settlement of Tamil merchants in the Straits of Malacca. In fact, such a fortified settlement of Manigramam merchants seems to have already existed at Takuapa in the Isthmus of Kra during Pallava rule in the late ninth century.⁴⁸ But as a result of Rajendra’s naval expedition, the Cholas became equated with South Indian foreigners in Javanese inscriptions. Until the rise of the “Imperial Cholas”, only Klings or “Kalingas” were mentioned in Javanese inscriptions as foreign visitors from the eastern coast of India. In 1021, when South India had already emerged as a maritime power, an inscription added Drawidas to this list and they were then replaced by the Colikas in an inscription of the year 1053.⁴⁹ The trade of South Indian merchants continued to flourish also in the realm of Srivijaya. This is well documented by the famous inscription of the Ayyavole guild of the year 1088, discovered in Barus in West Sumatra. Only recently completely edited by Y. Subbarayalu,⁵⁰ it reports a grant of “Captain of the town, the merchant of the locality” (*nakara-senapati nattu chettiyar*) and depicts an obviously flourishing social life of an autonomous quarter of the Tamil community in Barus.

From the eleventh century the impact of South Indian trade in Southeast Asia was accompanied by a new wave of cultural influence from South India. It emanated primarily from the realm of the Cholas and replaced the strong influence of Pallava art and architecture of previous centuries. But it

soon underwent the interesting process of “localization”, particularly in Sumatra. This is well depicted by a bronze sculpture from Gunung Tua and stone sculptures from Kota Cina in North Sumatra. Whereas the locally made bronze sculpture of Lokanatha and Tara with its dated Old Malay inscription of the year 1039 still depicts an excellent classical Chola style,⁵¹ the later stone sculptures of Kota Cina reveal a thoroughly localized Chola style of northern Sumatra.⁵²

Towards the end of the eleventh century, particularly under the reign of Kulottunga I (1070–1118), the Cholas renewed their activities in the Bay of Bengal.⁵³ In 1067–68 they interfered again in Srivijaya with a naval expedition on behalf of a pretender to the throne of Kadaram, Srivijaya’s second capital on the Malay Peninsula. At the Chinese court, however, this assistance to a prince of Srivijaya did not enhance the reputation of the Cholas. For several years the Chola state was wrongly termed in official Chinese annals as a tributary or “vassal” state of Srivijaya. This obviously false estimation might have been deliberately caused by Srivijaya’s envoys at the Chinese court. The “misunderstanding” was corrected only by a new mission of the Cholas to China under Kulottunga in 1077. It consisted of seventy-two persons, most of whom were traders. They were accorded two exceptionally high privileges of protocol. Srivijaya had to send two missions in 1079 and 1088 in order to receive the same honours.⁵⁴ However, about twenty years later, the “anti-Chola faction” of Srivijaya seems to have regained the upper hand again at the imperial court of China. As pointed out by Tansen Sen, the President of the Council of Rites in 1106 objected to the imperial intention of receiving envoys from Pagan in accordance to the status given to envoys of the Cholas by saying: “The Chola [Kingdom] is subject to Srivijaya, this is why during the Xining reign period (1068–1077), we wrote to its ruler on a coarse paper with an envelope of plain stuff. Pagan, on the other hand, is a great kingdom and should not be perceived as a small tributary state. It deserves a comparable status [as given to] Arab, Jiaozhi (present-day Vietnam), and other [similar] states.”⁵⁵

The involvement of the Cholas, and in particular, of Kulottunga, in Srivijayan affairs during these years is a controversial matter. It is most likely that Kulottunga’s name (*Di-hua-jia-luo*) occurs as the name of the ruler of Srivijaya in a Chinese transliteration in the above mentioned Cantonese inscription of the year 1079, since the same name occurs in the Song annals as the name of the Chola king who sent the mission in the year 1077.⁵⁶ From this evidence, the renewed naval activities of the Cholas in 1067–68, and other scattered evidence, one may infer that the Cholas supported one faction of the Srivijayan court or one port city of its

confederation. Another faction might then have spread the news that the Chola kingdom had become a “vassal state” of Srivijaya. After all, this was a period of intensive power struggle in Srivijaya. Only a few decades later Srivijaya-Palembang lost its dominating position among the port-cities of Srivijaya to Jambi. Tan Yeok Seong, the editor of the Srivijayan inscription of Canton, even came to the conclusion that Kulottunga might have stayed in Kadaram after the naval expedition of 1067, and reinstalled its king before he returned to South India to occupy the Chola throne in 1070.⁵⁷ In about 1090, Kulottunga, at the request of the king of Srivijaya renewed, via his famous smaller Leiden grant, the donation of the villages, which Rajaraja had granted in 1005 for the maintenance of the *vihara* at Nagapattinam, built by the then ruler of Srivijaya.⁵⁸

Kulottunga also maintained friendly relations with the two great kingdoms of Mainland Southeast Asia. In 1114, soon after his enthronement, King Suryavarman II, the famous builder of Angkor Wat, sent a mission to the Chola court, which presented a precious stone to Kulottunga. And in an inscription at Pagan, the Burmese King Kyanzittha (1077–1112) even claims to have converted the “Choli prince” to the teachings of the Buddha by a personal letter written on gold leaves in which he praised the greatness of the Buddhist *triratna*.⁵⁹ These rituo-political missions and donations also appear to have been connected with the promotion of trade as Kulottunga is praised for abolishing tolls (*sungam*)⁶⁰ and he is the only Chola king whose name is associated with a harbour. The renaming of Vishakhapattanam in Andhra Pradesh as *Kulottungacolapattanam* indicates Kulottunga’s interest in trade with countries on the opposite side of the Bay of Bengal, that is, with Burma and Cambodia via the Isthmus of Kra.⁶¹

The decline of the Chola power from the late twelfth century by no means caused a decrease in South Indian trade in the Bay of Bengal and China. The twelfth and thirteenth centuries were a period of the greatest activities of the two South Indian guilds of the Ayyavole and Manigramam merchants, mainly in South India itself of course, and in Sri Lanka.⁶² But Burma and the southern Thai peninsula too remained regions where South Indian merchant guilds were active during this period. An inscription of the thirteenth century at the only Hindu temple at Pagan, which was most likely built for Indian merchants, reports a donation by a member of the South Indian *nanadesi* merchants.⁶³ The Tamil stone inscription of Nakhon Si Thammarat in the Wat Boromadhatu reports a Brahmadeya grant by Danma Senapati, most likely a merchant from Cholamandala.⁶⁴ The weakening of the Chola state from the mid-thirteenth century allowed other kingdoms in the Bay of Bengal and their harbours to participate more actively in the Indian Ocean trade. This can be inferred from the famous Motupalli

inscription of King Ganapati of the Kakatiya Kingdom in northern Andhra Pradesh who offered in the year 1244 “safety to traders by sea starting for and arriving from all continents, islands, foreign countries and cities”.⁶⁵ Recent excavations at Manikapatnam, an ancient maritime harbour in the Chilka Lake in Orissa, corroborate the increase in Chinese trade in this region of the Bay of Bengal during this period.

Particularly impressive is the thirteenth-century evidence of the presence of a large South Indian merchant community in China and of Chinese traders in South India. More recent discoveries in Quanzhou (which under the Southern Song dynasty had gradually surpassed Canton as China’s main port and as a place of large colonies of foreign merchants) have brought to light a well-preserved lower portion of a Hindu temple and about 300 sculptures, all in purely late but localized Chola style.⁶⁶ This temple and the large number of Hindu sculptures are the earliest known infallible evidence of the existence of a large South Indian colony in China.⁶⁷ A bilingual Tamil-Chinese inscription of the year AD 1281 reports the dedication of a Saiva statue in yet another Hindu temple in Quanzhou. Its author might have been the son of the last Chola king, Rajaraja III, who would have sought the help of the Chinese emperor two years after the eclipse of his dynastic fortune.⁶⁸ Two months before this dedication, a Mongol envoy, Yang Tingbi, had already been dispatched to India — most likely to South India, “underscoring the reciprocal nature of this relationship”.⁶⁹

The evidence for the presence of a Chinese merchant community in South India during these years is equally impressive. Until 1867 the ruins of a three-storeyed Chinese pagoda existed in Nagapattinam. From Chinese sources we know that it was constructed in AD 1267. China thus seems to have followed the example of Srivijaya and its Buddhist monastery at Nagapattinam. Moreover, altogether 1,838 Chinese coins have been discovered in the neighbourhood of Nagapattinam, most probably belonging to a coin hoard. They are dated from the second to the thirteenth centuries. The most recent among these belong to a time bracket of 1265 to 1275, which corresponds exactly with the date of the construction of the Chinese pagoda. If we add to this evidence the findings of Chinese ceramics in South India, the greatest amount of which belong to the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries,⁷⁰ it becomes obvious that these centuries were a period of intensive and mostly direct trade relations between South and Eastern India and China.⁷¹

The establishment of the Delhi Sultanate in 1206, its temporary extension to Central and South India in the early fourteenth century, the subsequent establishment of the Deccan and Madurai Sultanates, and the spread of Islam in India’s ports and along the maritime trading routes in Southeast Asia,

further increased India's importance in the Indian Ocean trade system. Through its Indian and foreign Muslim trading communities, India's ports became more directly linked with the "international" Muslim trade in the Indian Ocean. South Indian Muslim merchants such as the Telugu Klings and Tamil Chulias were particularly active in the Malay world.⁷² Moreover, the conquest of Bengal by Muslim armies around AD 1200 seems to have considerably enhanced the maritime activities of Bengal. It drew its harbours into the orbit of the Delhi Sultanate and transoceanic trade of Muslim merchants which connected the Near East and South India with Southeast Asia and China. An indication of these increased activities of Bengal trade with China are the envoys which the Sultanate of Bengal sent regularly to China during the early fifteenth century.⁷³

In the early fifteenth century, two events were of the greatest importance and significance for the last century of the Indian Ocean trade system before the coming of the Europeans: the founding of Malacca and the maritime expeditions of the Ming dynasty under the imperial eunuch Zheng He. His seven expeditions between 1405 and 1433 firmly established a temporal hegemony of China over in the "Southern Sea", viz. Southeast Asia, and extended temporarily China's dominant maritime position stepwise up to Sri Lanka, South India, the Persian Gulf, the Red Sea, and East Africa.⁷⁴ Whereas during these years, and initially under the direct influence of Zheng He's expeditions, Malacca rose to become a major trade centre of the Indian Ocean,⁷⁵ the Mings broke off their systematic and successful maritime expansionism as suddenly as it had begun. Both events, the founding of Malacca and Zheng He's expeditions, were the climax of a bundle of interrelated all-Asian processes. In this chapter these processes have been exemplified by an analysis of the naval expedition of the Cholas and their quest for political and economic domination of the Bay of Bengal in the eleventh century. The result of these processes and their dynamics was the emergence of a close-matched maritime network of intensive political, economic, and cultural relations, interlinking its regional networks in the Near East, South, Southeast, and East Asia. The geographical and cultural centre of this maritime network was South India.

Notes

1. Earlier versions of this paper were published in Om Prakash and Dennis Lombard, eds., *Commerce and Culture in the Bay of Bengal, 1500–1800* (New Delhi, 1999), pp. 17–36 and in P. Borschberg and M. Krieger, eds., *Water and State in Europe and Asia* (New Delhi, 2008), pp. 19–34.
2. *South Indian Inscriptions*, vol. II, p. 109, quoted after K. A. N. Sastri, *The Cōlas* (Madras, 1955), p. 211.

3. Sastri, *The Cōlas*, p. 220.
4. G. W. Spencer, "The Politics of Plunder: The Cholas in Eleventh Century Ceylon", *Journal of Asian Studies* 35 (1976): 405–420; idem, *The Politics of Expansion: The Chola Conquest of Sri Lanka and Srivijaya* (Madras, 1983).
5. Tansen Sen, "Maritime Contacts between China and the Cola Kingdom of South India: 850–1279", in *Mariners, Merchants and Oceans: Studies in Maritime History*, by K. S. Mathew (New Delhi, 1995), pp. 25–42.
6. Tansen Sen, *Buddhism, Diplomacy, and Trade: The Realignment of Sino-Indian Relations, 600–1400* (Honolulu, 2003), p. 225.
7. K. V. Ramesh, "Reconsidering Cultural Intercourse between India and Southeast Asia: An Epigraphical Report", in *Ancient and Medieval Commercial Activities in the Indian Ocean: Testimony of Inscriptions and Ceramic-sherds. Report of the Taisho University Research Project 1997–2000*, edited by N. Karashima (Tokyo, 2002 [printed in Chennai]), pp. 147–59.
8. "Our belief is that the raid was undertaken partly at least to establish trading rights for Tamil-speaking merchants in those areas, a trade from which the ruler, the merchant and the Chola bureaucracy could expect sizable profits", M. Abraham, *Two Medieval Merchant Guilds of South India* (New Delhi, 1988), p. 142.
9. G. F. Hourani, *Arab Seafaring in the Indian Ocean in Ancient and Early Medieval Times* (Beirut, 1963), p. 79; for a comprehensive overview, see K. N. Chaudhuri, *Trade and Civilisation in the Indian Ocean: An Economic History from the Rise of Islam to 1750* (Cambridge, 1985).
10. "Fatimid ships moved aggressively throughout the Mediterranean and into the Red Sea and the Indian Ocean. It was at this time that the centre of Islam in the Indian Ocean shifted from the Persian Gulf to the Red Sea." (J. Abu-Lughod, *Before European Hegemony: The World System A.D. 1250–1350* (Oxford, 1989), p. 226.) A major factor of this development was the unification of the Red Sea (including Yemen) under the political authority of the Fatimids, see U. Haarmann and B. Zantana, "Zwischen Suez und Aden: Pilger und Fernhaendler im Roten Meer vom zehnten bis zum sechzehnten Jahrhundert", in *Der Indische Ozean in historischer Perspektive*, edited by S. Conermann (Hamburg, 1998), pp. 109–42.
11. S. D. Goitein, "From the Mediterranean to India. Documents on the Trade to India, South Arabia, and East Africa from the Eleventh and Twelfth Centuries", *Speculum* 29 (1954): 181–97; idem, "From Aden to India. Specimens of the Correspondence of India Traders of the Twelfth Century", *Journal of the Economic and Social History of the Orient* 23 (1980): 43–66.
12. Wang Gungwu, "The Nanhai Trade: A Study of the Early History of Chinese Trade in the South Sea", *Journal of the Malayan Branch of the Royal Asiatic Society* 31 (1958): 1–135.
13. Hermann Kulke, "The Early and the Imperial Kingdom. A Processual Model of Integrative State Formation in Early Medieval India", in *The State in India 1000–1700*, edited by H. Kulke (New Delhi, 1995), pp. 233–77; idem, "The Early and the Imperial Kingdom in Southeast Asian History", in *Southeast Asia*

- in the 9th to 14th Centuries*, edited by D. G. Marr and A. C. Milner (Singapore, 1986), pp. 1–22.
14. K. R. Hall, "International Trade and Foreign Diplomacy in Early Medieval South India", *Journal of the Economic and Social History of the Orient* 21 (1978): 75–98; idem, "Eleventh-Century Commercial Developments in Angkor and Champa", *Journal of Southeast Asian Studies* 10 (1979): 420–34.
 15. O. W. Wolters, "Tambralinga", *Bulletin of the School of Oriental and African Studies* 21 (1958): 587–607.
 16. B. Ch. Chhabra, *Expansion of Indo-Aryan Culture During Pallava Period* (Delhi, 1965) pp. 26–34.
 17. Boechari, *Some Considerations of the Problem of the Shift of Mataram's Center of Government from Central to East Java in the 10th Century A.D.*, Bulletin of the Research Centre of Archaeology of Indonesia. No. 10 (Jakarta, 1976).
 18. O. W. Wolters, *Early Indonesian Commerce. A Study of the Origins of Srivijaya* (Ithaca and London, 1967); H. Kulke, "'Kadatuan Srivijaya': Empire or Kraton of Srivijaya? A Reassessment of the Epigraphical Evidence", *Bulletin de l'École Française d'Extrême Orient* 80 (1993): 159–80; P. Y. Manguin, "The Amorphous Nature of Coastal Polities in Insular Southeast Asia: Restricted Centres, Extended Peripheries", *Moussons* 5 (2002): 73–99.
 19. G. R. Tibbetts, *A Study of the Arabic Texts Containing Material on South-East Asia* (Leiden, 1979), p. 38.
 20. H. Hirth and W. W. Rockhill, *Chau Ju-kua: His Work on the Chinese and Arab Trade in the Twelfth and Thirteenth Centuries, entitled Chu-fan-chih* (St Petersburg, 1911), p. 64, quoted from So Kee-Long, "Dissolving Hegemony or Changing Trade Pattern? Images of Srivijaya in the Chinese Sources of the Twelfth and Thirteenth Centuries", *Journal of Southeast Asian Studies* 29 (1998): 295–308, see p. 301.
 21. The report of a rather early mission from He-luo-dan on Java in the year AD 430 is very informative for this type of East Asian diplomacy. "My country once had a large population and was prosperous [and] never bullied by other countries. But now the situation is different and we have become weak. My neighbours vie with each other in attacking me. I beg Your Majesty to extend Your protection from far. I also hope that there will be no trading restrictions which will affect the coming and going [of our merchants]. If you pity me I hope that you will send missions ordering these countries not to maltreat us so that Your Majesty's repudiation as the protector of the weak will be known everywhere. I hope that you will instruct the Canton officials to send back my ship and not permit them to rob and hurt [my traders]. I wish hereafter to send missions every year." *Liu Song shu*, 5, 33b, quoted by O. W. Wolters, *Early Indonesian Commerce. A Study of the Origins of Srivijaya* (Ithaca, 1967), p. 151.
 22. Wang Gungwu, "The Nanhai Trade"; see also P. Wheatley, "Geographical Notes on Some Commodities Involved in Sung Maritime Trade", *Journal of the Malay Branch of the Royal Asiatic Society* 32, no. 2 (1959): 5–140 (21); Jung-Pang Lo,

- “Maritime Commerce and its Relation to the Sung Navy”, *Journal of the Economic and Social History of the Orient* 12 (1969): 57–101 and see particularly Tansen Sen, *Buddhism, Diplomacy and Trade*.
23. K. N. Chaudhury, *Trade and Civilisation in the Indian Ocean*.
 24. P. Wheatley, “Geographical Notes on Some Commodities”, p. 24ff.
 25. G. Coedès, *The Indianized States of Southeast Asia* (Honolulu, 1968), p. 132.
 26. W. P. Groeneveldt, *Historical Notes on Indonesia and Malaya. Compiled from Chinese Sources* (Reprint) (Jakarta 1960), p. 65.
 27. *Epigraphia Indica*, XXII, p. 257. Already in ca. AD 860, Balaputra, the first Sailendra king of Srivijaya, established a Buddhist monastery at Nalanda, which was endowed by the Pala King Devapala with land grants; see F. D. K. Bosch, “Een oorkonde van het Groote Klooster te Nalanda”, *Tijdschrift voor Indische Taal-, Land-, en Volkenkunde* 65 (1925): 509–88.
 28. For a comprehensive study of the involvement of the Cholas in this struggle for hegemony in the eastern section of the Indian Ocean, see also Sen, “Maritime Contacts” and *Buddhism, Diplomacy and Trade*; K. A. N. Sastri, *The Cōlas*; G. W. Spencer, *The Politics of Expansion*; and K. R. Hall, *Trade and Statecraft in the Age of the Cholas* (New Delhi, 1980).
 29. K. R. Hall, “International Trade and Foreign Diplomacy”, p. 88.
 30. K. A. N. Sastri, *The Cōlas*, p. 220.
 31. *Canton Stories (Pingzhou daida)*, quoted from So Kee-Long, see note 20.
 32. G. Coedès, *The Indianized States*, p. 91.
 33. H. Kulke, *The Devaraja Cult* (Ithaca, 1978), p. 75; reprinted in *Kings and Cults. State Formation and Legitimation in India and Southeast Asia* (New Delhi, 1993), p. 344.
 34. K. R. Hall, “Khmer Commercial Development and Foreign Contacts under Suryavarman I”, *Journal of the Economic and Social History of the Orient* 18 (1975): 318–36; idem, “International Trade and Foreign Diplomacy”.
 35. Quoted from Sen, “Maritime Contacts”.
 36. *Song hui yao*, quoted by Sen, *Buddhism, Diplomacy and Trade*, p. 319, note 95.
 37. Sen, *Buddhism, Diplomacy and Trade*, pp. 220–27.
 38. G. Coedès, *The Indianized State*, p. 144.
 39. For a more detailed discussion of the disputed naval expedition of the year 1017 see the chapter by Tansen Sen in this volume.
 40. N. Karashima, “Relations between South India and China in Chola Times”, in *Professor K. A. Nilakanta Sastri Felicitation Volume* (Madras 1971), p. 69f.
 41. K. N. Chaudhuri, *Trade and Civilisation in the Indian Ocean*, p. 56.
 42. M. Abraham, *Two Medieval Merchant Guilds of South India* (Delhi, 1988).
 43. P. Wheatley, “Geographical Notes on Some Commodities”, p. 25.
 44. O. W. Wolters, “Tambralinga”, p. 251.
 45. J. Wisseman Christie, “The Medieval Tamil-language Inscriptions in Southeast Asia and China”, *Journal of Southeast Asian Studies* 29 (1998): 254.
 46. Tan Yeok Seong, “The Sri Vijayan Inscription of Canton (AD 1079)”, *Journal of Southeast Asian History* 5 (1964): 17–26.

47. Chou K'u-fei (AD 1178) quoted by F. Hirth and W. W. Rockhill, *Chau Ju-kua*, p. 23.
48. K. A. N. Sastri, "Takuapa and its Tamil Inscription", *Journal of the Malayan Branch of the Royal Asiatic Society* 22 (1949): 25–30; J. Wisseman Christie, "The Medieval Tamil-language Inscriptions", p. 251.
49. J. Wisseman Christie, "Asian Sea Trade between the Tenth and Thirteenth Centuries and Its Impact on the States of Java and Bali", in *Archaeology of Seafaring: The Indian Ocean in the Ancient Period*, by H. P. Ray (Delhi, 1999), pp. 221–70.
50. Y. Subbarayalu, "The Tamil Merchant-Guild Inscription at Barus, Indonesia: A Rediscovery", in *Ancient and Medieval Commercial Activities*, edited by Karashima, pp. 19–26; see also K. A. N. Sastri, "A Tamil Merchant Guild in Sumatra", *Tijdschrift voor Indische Taal-, Land- en Volkenkunde* 72 (1932): 314–27. For the other Tamil inscriptions in Southeast Asia and China, see N. Karashima, "Tamil Inscriptions in Southeast Asia and China", in *Ancient and Medieval Commercial Activities*, edited by Karashima, pp. 11–17; J. Wisseman Christie, "The Medieval Tamil-language Inscriptions", and now particularly N. Karashima and Y. Subbarayalu in Appendix I of the present volume.
51. R. Mulia, "The Ancient Kingdom of Panai and the Ruins of Padang Lawas (North Sumatra)", *Bulletin of the Research Centre of Archaeology of Indonesia*, No. 14 (Jakarta, 1980), p. 27 and plates 21–23.
52. E. McKinnon, A. C. Milner, and Tengku Luckman Sinair, "A Note on Aru and Kota Cina", *Indonesia* 26 (1978): 1–42.
53. For a thorough analysis of these peculiar "misunderstandings" see Sen, *Buddhism, Diplomacy and Trade*, pp. 23–27; see also K. R. Hall, "International Trade and Foreign Diplomacy", and K. A. N. Sastri, *The Cōlas*, p. 316f.
54. O. W. Wolters, *The Fall of Srivijaya in Malay History* (London 1970), p. 93.
55. Quotation from the *song shi*, see Sen, *Buddhism, Diplomacy and Trade*, p. 224.
56. For details, see Tan Yeok Seong, "The Sri Vijayan Inscription"; see also Sen, "Maritime Contacts", and *Buddhism, Diplomacy and Trade*.
57. Tan Yeok Seong, "The Srivijayan Inscription", p. 21 and K. A. N. Sastri, *The Cōlas*, pp. 316–18.
58. K. A. N. Sastri, *The Cōlas*, p. 318.
59. J. Stargardt, "Burma's Economic and Diplomatic Relations with India and China from Early Medieval Sources", *Journal of the Economic and Social History of the Orient* 14 (1971): 38–62; K. R. Hall, "International Trade and Foreign Diplomacy", p. 94.
60. K. A. N. Sastri, *The Cōlas*, p. 331. Kulottunga's "generosity" might have had quite concrete reasons as Chau Ju-Kua reports in 1225: "As the taxes and imposts of the [Chu-lien] kingdom are numerous and heavy, traders rarely go there"; see F. Hirth and W. W. Rockhill, *Chau Ju-kua*, p. 95.
61. Ranabir Chakravarti, "Kulottunga and the Port of Visakhapattanam", *Indian*

- History Congress Proceedings* 42 (1981): 142–45; idem, “Rulers and Ports: Visakhapattanam and Mottupalli in Early Medieval Andhra”, in *Mariners, Merchants and Oceans. Studies in Maritime History*, edited by K. S. Mathew (Delhi, 1995), pp. 57–78.
62. M. Abraham, *Two Medieval Merchant Guilds*, pp. 127–81; Burton Stein, “Coromandel Trade in Medieval India”, in *Merchants and Scholars: Essay in the History of Exploration and Trade*, edited by J. Parker (Minneapolis, 1965), pp. 47–62.
 63. *Epigraphia Indica*, VII, pp. 197–98; see also J. Wisseman Christie, “The Medieval Tamil-language Inscriptions”, pp. 265–66, and N. Karashima, *Ancient and Medieval Commercial Activities*, p. 15.
 64. N. Karasima, *Ancient and Medieval Commercial Activities*, p. 13.
 65. *Epigraphia Indica*, XII, p. 196; see particularly M. Abraham, *Two Medieval Merchant Guilds*, p. 147, and R. Chakravarti, “Kulottunga”, pp. 66–71.
 66. John Guy, “The Lost Temples of Nagappattinam and Quanzhou: A Study of Sino-Indian Relations” in *Silk Road Art & Archaeology* 3 (1993/94): 291–310.
 67. Sen, *Buddhism, Diplomacy and Trade*, p. 228.
 68. T. N. Subrahmaniam, “A Tamil Colony in Medieval China”, *South Indian Studies* (1978): 1–52 (quoted by J. Guy, p. 298).
 69. J. Guy, “The Lost Temples”, p. 300; see also J. Wisseman Christie, “The Medieval Tamil-language Inscriptions”, pp. 267–68.
 70. Y. Subbarayalu, “Chinese Ceramics of Tamil Nadu and Kerala Coasts”, in *Tradition and Archaeology. Early Maritime Contacts in the Indian Ocean*, edited by H. P. Ray, J.-F. Salles (New Delhi, 1996), pp. 109–14.
 71. Haraprasad Ray, “Trade between South India and China 1368–1644”, in *Commerce and Culture in the Bay of Bengal, 1500–1800*, edited by Om Prakash, D. Lombard, pp. 37–46; idem, *Trade and Diplomacy in India-China Relations: A Study of Bengal during the Fifteenth Century* (New Delhi, 1993); for Orissa see D. Pradhan, P. Mohanty, J. Misra, “Manikapatana: An Ancient and Medieval Port on the Coast of Orissa”, in *Archaeology of Orissa*, edited by K. K. Basa and P. Mohanty (Delhi, 2000), pp. 473–94.
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 73. T. Yamamoto, “International Relations between China and the Countries along the Ganges in the Early Ming Period”, *Indian Historical Review* 4 (1977/78): 13–19.
 74. R. Ptak, ed., *China and the Asian Seas. Trade, Travel and Visions of the Other (1400–1700)* (Aldershot, 1998).
 75. Wang Gungwu, “The Opening of Relations between China and Malacca, 1403–5”, in *Malayan and Indonesian Studies. Essays Presented to Sir Richard Winstedt*, edited by J. Bastin and R. Rollvink (Oxford, 1964), pp. 87–104.